by which they are replaced, it would be difficult to feel sure to which religion any particular caves might belong. It is true that after a century of perseverance in practising the style, the Brahmans began to draw away from the Buddhist originals which they had been copying, and in the Sitâ ka Nâni and in other later caves seemed on the verge of creating a new style. Before, however, they had done much in this direction their progress was stopped by a revolution of rather a startling nature. From motives we are only now beginning to understand, those who designed the Kailâsa resolved to cut the gordian knot, and instead of a temple which could in any sense be called a *cave*, determined on excavating what



No. 69. View of Kailâsa from the West, from a sketch by Jas. F.

could only be designated as a *rock-cut* temple. With the exception of the Rathas at Mahâvallipur, perhaps the first of its class that had been executed in India.

Fortunately we have now the means of perceiving with tolerable clearness how and when this revolution took place. During the struggle that took place between the Buddhist and Brahmans in the latter half of the seventh century, the Chalukyas held sway at

Kalyan, and in the country where all the principal caves are situated. Even if not very strict Buddhists themselves, they at least tolerated it, and apparently favoured it more than the rival faith. At the end of that century, however, a new dynasty known as the Râshṭrakuṭas or Râthors arose at Malkhêd—the Mulker of the maps—near Kalbarga, and 50 miles south of Kalyan, who under various names during the next two centuries eclipsed, even if they did not entirely supersede the power of the Chalukyas in these regions.[1] The fourth king of this dynasty, Dantidurga, was one of the most remarkable and powerful sovereigns of his age in that country. During his reign (725–755 A.D.) he conquered the whole of the Dekhan up to the Narmada[2] (Nerbudda), and consequently held sway over all these regions in which Elurâ and the other great cave centres are situated. As he was so powerful a king and a zealous worshipper of Śiva, nothing is more likely than that he should undertake such an excavation as that of the Kailâsa. Those among his successors who were sufficiently powerful to do so, such as Govinda III. (A.D. 785–810) and Amoghavarsha (810), were too late for the style which we fortunately know was that which prevailed during the reign of Dantidurga. No one will probably hesitate to accept this as a fact, who is familiar with the plan and details of the great Śaiva temple at Paṭṭadkal near Badami, and not far from the capital of this king. The arrangements of the plan and even the dimensions of the two temples are almost identical. The style is the same, and even the minutest architectural ornaments are so alike as almost to be interchangeable.[3] In fact it would be difficult to find in India two temples so like one another, making allowance, of course, for the one being structural and the other cut in the rock, and the one being consequently one storey in height, the other two. Barring these inevitable peculiarities they both might have been erected by the same architect, and certainly belong to the same age. What that was has been ascertained from an inscription on the Paṭṭadkal Temple, which states that it was erected by the Queen of the second

---

[1] *J. R. A. S.*, vol. iv. p. 7, *et seqq.*

[2] Burgess's *Archæological Reports*, vol. iii. p. 23, *et seqq.*; G. Bühler, in *Indian Antiquary*, vol. vi. p. 59, *et seqq.*, where all the known details regarding these Râthors will be found.

[3] *Archæological Reports*, vol. i., Plates XXXIX. and XL., for plan and details; and *Architecture of Dharwar and Mysore*, Plates 54 to 57, for views.

Vikramâditya Chalukya in the year 733 A.D.,[1] and consequently during the reign of Dantidurga. Thus confirming the probability, in so far as architectural evidence can do so, that the Kailâsa was excavated during the reign of that monarch.

Although it is extremely improbable that the Paṭṭadkal temple is the earliest example of a structural temple in the Dravidian style in India, it certainly is the earliest to which an authentic date can be attached, and none with an older appearance have yet been found. If, however, our chronology is correct, the Raths at Mahâvallipur are at least half a century earlier, and even there the conversion of the wooden forms of Buddhist vihâras into lithic temple architecture is so complete that their intermediate forms must have pre-existed somewhere.

As the case at present stands, those Raths at Mahâvallipur are the earliest examples known to exist in India of rock-cut, as contra-distinguished from cave temples—the Kailâsa the latest, and unless some detached hills or boulders suitable for the purpose could be found,—a temple in a pit is so illogical and such an anomaly that none were probably ever executed anywhere else. Besides this both the Raths and the Kailâsa being in the Dravidian style of architecture they belong properly to the south country, where caves never were the fashion. The latter, in fact, is the farthest north specimen known to exist of the style, and is altogether so exceptional that it seems in vain to look for any repetition of it in the cave regions.

Notwithstanding the defects arising from its situation and its anomalous design, the Kailâsa is by far the most extensive and elaborate rock-cut temple in India, and, in so far as dimensions and the amount of labour bestowed upon it are concerned, will stand a comparison with those of Egypt or any other country. Now, too, that its history is practically known, it is one of the most interesting, as well as the most magnificent, of all the architectural objects which that country at present possesses.

At the Kailâsa the work, instead of being commenced as in all antecedent cave temples from the face of the rock, was begun by cutting down three mighty trenches in the solid rock, two of them

[1] *Archæological Reports*, vol. iii. p. 31.

at right angles to the front of the rock and more than 90 yards in length, and the third, connecting their inner ends, over 50 yards in length and 107 feet deep, leaving the nearly isolated mass in the middle to be carved both on the outside and interior into a great monolithic shrine with numerous adjuncts. In front of the court in which it stands, a mass of rock has been left to represent the Gopura, or great gateway pyramid, which is an indispensable adjunct of Dravidian temples. These generally are in stone only to height of one storey, above which the pyramidal part is in most instances in brick and some lighter substance. Here it is in two storeys, the lower one adorned on the outside with the forms of Śiva, Vishṇu, and their congeners, and with rooms inside it. It is not clear whether it ever was intended to carry it higher than it now is, but from the existence of a diminutive roof-formed projection in the top, cut in the rock, it is probable the intention was at all events abandoned, if ever proposed. It is besides unlikely, as it would have hid the temple entirely from the outside. This Gopura is pierced in the centre by an entrance passage (*A.*, Plate LXXXI.)[1] with rooms on each side. Passing this the visitor is met by a large sculpture of Lakshmî seated on lotuses, with her attendant elephants. There are some letters and a date on the leaves of the lotus on which she sits, but illegible, and probably belonging to the 15th century. On the bases of the pilasters on each side have been inscriptions in characters of the eighth century, but of these only a few letters remain legible.

Here we enter right and left, the front portion of the court, which is a few feet lower than the rest; and at the north and south ends of it stand two gigantic elephants,—that on the south much mutilated. Turning again to the east and ascending a few steps, we are in the great court of the temple, which measures 276 in length, with an average breadth of 154, and with a scarp 107 feet high at the back. In the front part of the court stands a maṇḍapa or shrine for the Bull Nandi (*B.* in plan LXXXI.), 26 feet square and two storeys in height; the lower one solid, the upper one connected with the Gopura, and with the Temple itself, by bridges cut in the rock. On each side of this porch stands a square pillar or dwajaśtambha or ensign staff, 45 feet in height. But to this must be added what

[1] In order that the plans of the Kailâsa may be introduced into the work without twice folding, the scale on which they are engraved has been reduced to 35 feet to 1 inch instead of 25 feet to 1 inch, which is that usually adopted for plans throughout.

remains of the trisula of Śiva on the top, making up the total height to 49 feet, as represented on Plate LXXX., fig. 1.

A little further back in this court stands the temple itself (*C.* in plan), measuring 164 from east to west, and 109 across where widest, and rising to a height of 96 feet to the top of its dome. Like the Nandî shrine, its basement is solid, and, as will be seen from the plan (LXXXI.), very irregular in form, being a curious example of symmetriphobia, which is characteristic of all the Hindu buildings of that age. This irregularity is hardly perceived in the elevation (Plate LXXXII.), which is in itself a most remarkable conception. Between a bold podium and its cornice, it is adorned with a frieze of huge elephants, *śardûlas*, or griffins, and other mythological animals. These are in every possible attitude, feeding, fighting, and tearing each other to pieces, but all executed with considerable spirit and truth to animal forms, and notwithstanding the freedom with which they are executed, all seeming to support the temple above.

Under the bridge connecting the temple with the *maṇḍapa* are two large sculptures,—on the west Śiva as Kâl Bhairava with flaming eyes and in a state of frenzied excitement, with the *Saptâmâtras* at his feet; on the other he is represented almost exactly in the ascetic attitude of Buddha—as Mahâyogi the great ascetic, with attendant *munîs* or hermits, and gods. At each side of this bridge a stair leads up to the great hall of the temple. On the outer wall of the south stair is carved, in a series of lines, the story of the *Râmâyaṇa* or war of Râma, aided by Hanuman and his monkeys with Râvaṇa, the demon king of Laṅkâ; and on the north side are some of the episodes from the other great Hindu epic—the *Mahâbhârata* or account of the great war between the Pâṇḍavas and their relatives the Kauravas. Behind these bas-reliefs the sculptures of the lofty basement of the temple commence, with its row of huge elephants, *śardûlas*, &c. This line is unbroken except on the south side, where there has been a bridge across from a balcony of the temple to a cave in the scarp, but this bridge has long since fallen. Under this is a somewhat spirited sculpture of Râvaṇa under Kailâsa. Pârvatî is stretched out clinging to Śiva; while her maid, in fright at the shaking of the ground under her feet, is represented in the background fleeing for safety (*see* Plate LXXXII.).

The interior of the temple and parts at least of the exterior, if not the whole, have been plastered over and painted, whence, perhaps,

the name Ranga Mahâl, or Painted Palace, by which it is generally known among the natives to the present day. Where the painting has not very long ago peeled off, it has had the effect of preserving the stone inside from the smoke of wandering *jogis'* and travellers' fires, with which it must for ages have been saturated.

On the roof of the porch of the upper temple some bits of old fresco paintings still remain, of two or three successive coatings, that might help to give an idea of the style of decoration that at one time covered the whole of this great fane. The door of the upper temple (*C'*, Plate LXXXI A.), which rests in the solid basement just described, is guarded by gigantic Śaiva *dwârpâlas*, leaning on heavy maces. The hall (*C'*), 57 feet wide by 55 deep, has a wide central and cross aisle, while in each corner thus formed four massive square columns support the roof (Plate LXXXIV., fig. 3). The four round the central area are of one pattern, differing only in the details of their sculptures; the remaining twelve are also of one general type; while the sixteen pilasters (Plate LXXXIV., fig. 1) are more of the style of the four great central columns. At each end of the cross aisle is a door leading out into a side balcony with two pillars in front of it richly carved in florid ornamentation.[1]

The effect of this hall crowded by 16 great square piers on its floor is extremely different from what we have been accustomed to find in Buddhist vihâras. In them a large open space was always reserved in the centre for the use of the monks and the service of the shrine, and the well proportioned pillars are arranged so as to produce the best possible architectural effect, by dividing the hall into a centre and side aisles. Here, on the contrary, the 16 pillars are spread pretty evenly over the whole floor of the hall, evidently for the purpose of supporting the roof, and being square and massive they do produce an almost Egyptian effect of solidity and grandeur unlike anything else even in cave architecture known to exist in India. At Paṭṭadkal[2] the 16 pillars are even more evenly spaced over the floor, but that being a structural building they are more slender, and do

[1] If the details of these pillars and pilasters are compared with the pilaster represented in Plate XL., fig. 1, of Mr. Burgess' first *Archæological Report*, they will see at a glance how nearly the style of the great Śaiva temple at Paṭṭadkal resembles that of the Kailâsa. I am not aware of anything at all like them occurring anywhere else, except perhaps in the temple of Aiholê close by, and of the same age.—J. F.

[2] *Archæological Survey of Western India*, vol. i., Plate XXXIX.

not crowd it to the same extent. Perhaps it was the failure that followed from the architect not providing sufficient supports at Mahâvallipur (*ante*, p. 118), which may have induced those who designed the Kailâsa to err, if error it is, on the side of over solidity. But whatever the cause the result gained is satisfactory, beyond anything of its class elsewhere in India.

At the east end of the hall is the vestibule of the shrine (*D'*). On the roof is Lakshmî or Anna Pûrṇâ, standing on a lotus, with high *jaṭâ* headdress. Brahmâ squats at her right elbow, and perhaps Vishṇu at her left, with *gandharvas* at the corners of the sculpture. On the north wall of this vestibule *was* Śiva and Pârvatî, engaged at *chausar*, but the gods are now almost totally destroyed; on the south was Śiva and Pârvatî upon Nandî couching on a slab supported by four *gaṇa*, and a fifth at the end. Śiva has a child on his right knee, and behind him are four attendants.

The *dwârpâlas* on each side the shrine door were females,—probably Gañgâ and Yamunâ, one on a *makara*, and the other on a tortoise (*kûrma*), but the heads of both have been destroyed.

The shrine is a plain cell 15 feet square inside, with a large rosette on the roof. The present altar or *śâḷuṅkhâ* is a modern affair. What originally occupied it is uncertain; it was probably a *liṅga*-shrine from the first, though the female *dwârpâlas* might suggest that this "Ranga Mahâl," or Painted Palace, was dedicated to one of the forms of Pârvatî or Bhavânî.[1]

A door in each of the back corners of the hall leads to the terrace behind, on which a wide path leads quite round the outside of the shrine, which forms the base of the *vimâna*, *śikhara*, or spire. This

---

[1] Tradition says that Râja II of Ilichpur, in Berar, cleaned out and painted the Elurâ Caves, and that he was afterwards killed in battle by Sayyid Rihman Daulah in A.H. 384 or A.D. 994: this is evidently much too early a date for any Muhammadan invasion of the Dekhan. It is possibly connected, however, with part of a painted inscription still traceable under a relief of Śiva and Yama near the north corner of the west face of the great temple, beginning "Śakê 1384 (A.D. 1463), when Kailâsa at least must have been covered with a fresh coating of plaster and painted in the debased style of the age. The temples doubtless suffered severely when Alâu'd-dîn took Devagiri (now Daulatâbâd) and forced Râja Râmadeva to cede Ilichpur to his uncle Jelalu'd-dîn, cir. 1294. They were sure also to suffer at the hands of Muhammad Tughlik, when he attempted to make Daulatâbâd his capital (1325–1351) (Elliot and Dowson's *Hist. of Ind.*, vol. vii. p. 189); but tradition ascribes their final desecration and most of the destruction of the sculpture to Aurangzeb, cir. 1684.

spire rises to a height of 96 feet from the court below, and is all elaborately carved. Below are compartments between pilasters, with richly-sculptured finials over each, and the centre of each compartment is occupied in most cases by some form of Śiva, with Vishṇu. (Plate LXXXII.) On the wall above these are flying figures, and over them the horizontal mouldings of the *śikhara* begin.

On the outer side of this platform are five small shrines, in four of which are altars as if for the worship of goddesses: the fifth is empty.

Besides their value here as elegant and appropriate adjuncts surrounding the central shrine, these five cells are interesting, as illustrative of the class of cells that apparently, at one time existed on the terraces of all the pyramidal Buddhist Vihâras. At Mahâvallipur and on the great Sikâra here, they have become so diminutive that they are unfit for human habitation, and are only reminiscences of the original types, and so they remained throughout the whole Dravidian period. Here, on the contrary, they are somewhat exaggerated in the opposite direction, to convert them from the abodes of men to temples for gods. But be this as it may, it is evident that these shrines are only part of that system by which the Vihâras of the Buddhists were converted into temples in the Dravidian style of architecture, of which the Kailâsa is one of the oldest and most conspicuous examples known to exist anywhere.

Returning to the entrance of the hall we pass across the bridge outside the porch to a pavilion (*B'*.) with four doors and a broken Nandî in it—probably not the original one, for this is but a small bull. Beyond this, to the west, are a number of chambers over the entrance porch. From these there is access to the roof of the small chambers which form the screen in front of the court, and from it good views along each side of the great temple can be had.[1]

Descending to the court we may again scramble up (for the steps are broken away) into a cave under the scarp on the south side (*E'*), measuring about 37 feet by 15, with two square pillars and pilasters in front, each pillar having a tall female warder with her hair hanging in loose folds towards her left shoulder and with two dwarf

[1] It is from the terrace of south wing that the view in the last woodcut, No. 69, is taken.

attendants. Behind each pillar on the floor is a low square pedestal, as if for an altar; and round the three inner sides of this *yajñaśâla*, or sacrificial hall, as it is sometimes called, are the female monsters the Bráhmaṇs delighted to teach their votaries to revere as the mothers of creation. First, on the west end, comes Wâgheśwarî, four-armed, with *triśula*, and under her feet the tiger; then a second, somewhat similar figure; and next, Kâl, a grinning skeleton with cobra girdle and necklace, seated on two dying men —a wolf gnawing the leg of one,—while behind him is Kâlî, and another skeleton companion. On the back wall is (1) Gaṇapatî as usual. (2) A female, almost quite destroyed, with a child, sitting on a wolf. (3) Indrânî, also destroyed. (4) Pârvatî with a bull in front of the seat as a cognizance, her head and the child destroyed. (5) Vaishṇavî, her arms and the child destroyed, and Garuḍa below. (6) Karttikeyî, bust gone, child crawling on the knee, with peacock holding a snake as a *chinha* or cognizance. (7) A Devî with *triśula*, and having a humped bull below. (8) Saraswatî holding a rosary. (9) Another Devî, two of her four arms broken off, holding a shallow vessel. On the east end are three female seated figures without the nimbus and cognizances that mark the others, and each holding a *chauri* or fly-flap:[1] these are separated from the preceding by a fat dwarf, who sits with his back to the three. All the figures are quite separate from the wall, and form a somewhat imposing assemblage.

Descending to the court again: under the west end of the *yajña-śâla* is a small low cave (*F.*, Plate LXXXI.), the verandah divided from the inner room by a *toraṇa* or ornamental arch from two attached pillars. Inside is an altar for some idol, probably a moveable one.

Opposite the sculpture of Râvaṇa already described, the ascent to the second storey of the cave in the scarp (*G'.*) may be effected by means of a ladder. The verandah is 61 feet by 22, inclusive of the two pillars in front, and inside is a dark hall 55 feet by 34, with four heavy plain pillars,—the shrine scarcely more than begun. A stair at the west end of the verandah leads to a third storey, not shown in the plan, but almost identical in dimension and arrangement, with similar verandah and hall. It is however lighted by two windows,

[1] These three figures are sometimes named by the local Brahmans Śivakâlî, Bhadra-kâlî, and Mahâkâlî. They and the dwarf are represented (rather too artistically) in a fine plate by Captain Grindlay in *Trans. R. As. Soc.*, vol. ii. p. 487.

besides the door, and by an opening in the roof up into a small cave that may be noticed at the roadside on the ascent of the ghât; its four pillars support arches on the four sides of the central square.

Passing now to the north side of the court, nearly opposite the obelisk, we enter a corridor 60 feet long (*H.*), with five pillars in the front. At the east end is an ascent of two or three steps to a figure of Śrî or Gaja Lakshmî, the goddess of prosperity, with a lotus in each hand, and four attendant elephants[1] (Plate LXXXIII., fig. 1). The stair to the left of this is badly lighted, but ascends to a fine cave called Laṅkâ or Laṅkeśwara, 123 feet long from the back of the Nandî shrine to that of the *pradakshiṇa*, and 60 wide inside the front screen. On entering from the stair a low screen-wall, connecting the west line of pillars, faces the visitor: to the left, and directly in front of the Nandî, which occupies a large recess in this end, is the entrance into the hall.

The roof is low, and supported by 27 massive pillars, besides pilasters, most of them richly carved, and of singularly appropriate design, but evidently of a later style than the central temple. As will be seen from the plan (Plate LXXXI A.) the arrangement of the 16 pillars in the centre is identical with that of the greater temple, only that the central and central cross aisle is somewhat wider, and being open on the west and south sides the hall has a more spacious and more cheerful appearance than the porch of the temple itself, though its dimensions are nearly the same. The pillars are all varied in design,[2] no two of them being exactly alike, and, being hardly more than three diameters in height, are more appropriate for rock-cut architecture than almost any other in India (Plate LXXXIV., fig. 4), and in strange contrast with quasi wooden posts that deformed the architecture of Mahâvallipur about a century earlier.

---

[1] We have had occasion to remark the frequency of this sculpture in Buddhist works both of early and late date. Like Aphrodite, she sprang from the froth of the ocean (when it was churned) in full beauty, with the lotus in her hand. The representation of her, bathed by elephants, seems to have been an equal favourite with the Brahmans. With whom is prosperity, abundance and fortune, not a favourite?

[2] A view of the interior of this temple forms Plate XVI. of my *Illustrations of the Rock-cut Temples of India*, fol., 1845.

I